

the names of peoples, and of authors and anonymous sources. Unfortunately, there is not a listing of the various modern interpreters of barbarian history, although such an index would have been valuable.

Coumert's introduction lays out Ethnogenesis according to Wenskus and Wolfram—though the former preferred the term *Stammesbildung*. Barbarian peoples formed around and were perpetuated by a core group of warriors, a “tradition-bearing kernel,” who kept alive stories of their origins and deeds. From a study of these traditions, Wenskus and Wolfram argue, it is possible to detect certain patterns in the evolution of barbarian peoples. For example, they were brought into being by “primordial acts” such as the crossing of a sea or a mighty river or the defeat of a powerful enemy against whom the warriors had struggled for generations. Such deeds were frequently accompanied by a change of religion: a shift from the earthy Vanir gods to the warlike Aesir deities. At the tradition-bearing core, a dynasty ruled that claimed divine descent and was able to maintain its authority as long as it enjoyed victory in war. Both Wenskus and Wolfram are careful to emphasize that the *Traditionskern* did not consist of a racially pure group of warriors. The fact that they discarded the racial theories that had been embraced by earlier scholars has made Ethnogenesis attractive to post–World War II generations of medievalists. Both Wenskus and Wolfram do, however, insist that membership in the inner (tradition-bearing) core was contingent upon the acceptance of “authentic” traditions by a “melting pot” of warriors. Modern historians, they believe, can also trust these traditions in a general sense, if not in detail.

Coumert does not mention Goffart's objections to the Ethnogenesis model in her introduction but instead takes them up for the first time in her discussion of Cassiodorus (p. 48). Goffart and his supporters believe that the stories of barbarian origins and deeds are myths that various authors shaped and rewrote to support widely differing political and religious ideologies. Rather than being authentic traditions that reveal insights into a distant past, surviving origins stories must be considered as literature to be understood within the context of the time and place of composition. Ethnogenesis is a theory that some scholars have used in a vain attempt to rescue heroic (largely Germanic) myths from the dustbin of history and to shoehorn those myths into a preconceived model.

Coumert's arguments tend to support Goffart's critique of Ethnogenesis, but she does not agree with him in many details. Her writing style is not acerbic, and she expresses her ideas tentatively. Readers are likely to find her persuasive. Moreover, her methodology takes her well beyond Goffart's analysis. For example, she begins each section with a discussion of sources independent of the primary origins stories, such as Roman mentions of Goths prior to Cassiodorus and Jordanes, and she continues from there to deal with much later evidence. Goffart, in contrast, in his *Narrators of Barbarian History* (1988) focuses on only four authors. Thus Coumert broadens the discourse considerably. Finally she gives much attention to antique geographical works from which the narrators borrowed. All in all, Magali Coumert has produced a useful addition to the vast and growing literature on barbarian origins.

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VALERIA DE FRAJA, *Oltre Cîteaux: Gioacchino da Fiore e l'Ordine fiorentino*. (Opere di Gioacchino da Fiore: Testi e Strumenti, 19.) Rome: Viella, 2006. Paper. Pp. 301 plus 2 color figures; tables. €30.

This volume traces the changing relationships between the Cistercian order and Joachim of Fiore as found in Joachim's writings on the monastic life. The opening chapter analyzes the two major hagiographical sources: an anonymous work, *The Life of the Blessed Abbot*

*Joachim*, and Luca of Cosenza's *Virtutum synopsis*, describing what they have to say about both monastic and political history and papal versus monastic models of sanctity. The author concludes that it is naive to treat the two texts as historically accurate sources for all aspects of Joachim's life for they are based at best on the outcome at Fiore rather than what Joachim intended to establish there.

The next two chapters consider Joachim and his relationship to the Cistercians, describing his early adherence to the Cistercian program and his friendship with Geoffrey of Auxerre. Much of the evidence used for Joachim's changing ties to Cîteaux is based on how his earlier writings identify Cîteaux as the biblical Jacob or the monastic Benedict. Later Joachim may be observed distancing himself from the Cistercians, disillusioned as he was with the failure of a commission set up by the order's general chapter of 1188–90 to reassert what he saw as the original Cistercian ideals of isolation, contemplation, and retreat from the world (the contemplative life of the biblical Mary), as opposed to a life of preaching and pastoral care (the active life of the biblical Martha). Such disillusionment and distancing from the order included a rupture with Geoffrey of Auxerre and a departure from the abbey of Corazzo to retreat into "the desert" with Raniero da Ponza. Eventually this led to the foundation of Fiore. Joachim's writings, particularly his sermons on the life of St. Benedict, tend to treat Cîteaux allegorically, the order being first identified with Benedict and later with Scholastica.

Chapter 4 describes developments in the last decade of the twelfth century and after the rupture with the Cistercians, when Joachim developed a scheme for the religious life that De Fraja calls "a multiplication of charisms," which attempted to include in a single community or congregation all possible types of the religious life, as led by monks, clerics, and the laity. In De Fraja's view, it was this "multiplication of charisms" that Joachim attempted to actualize in the three abbeys and seven priories of his congregation, or order, of Fiore. That contention is at the heart of De Fraja's book. Whether or not it is true that Joachim attempted this many-faceted model of the religious life, De Fraja concludes that his new order eventually failed. Indeed, after Joachim's death in 1202, his successors would turn more and more to the practices of the Cistercians, which Joachim himself had eventually rejected. Fiore, however, would particularly impress Hugolino/Gregory IX, who sponsored the founding of houses at Ninfa, Anagni, and Lucca. As De Fraja argues, moreover, Joachim's theoretical model of monastic, clerical, and lay branches within a single order did have a future. It would affect Innocent III's vision of the organization of the Humiliati and Gregory IX's of the third orders of the laity within the mendicant orders.

De Fraja includes an intelligent discussion of how religious orders were founded, agreeing (with me) that the new religious orders like the Cistercians had not been wholly formed in the first decades of the twelfth century but had taken a relatively long time to articulate their administrative programs and had often done so by a process of trial and error. In contrast, what was unique at Fiore was that Joachim's proposed new religious order was an intellectual creation based on his own allegorical, if not apocalyptic, readings of biblical and monastic texts. That Fiore was not wildly successful may be, as De Fraja suggests, precisely because of the rigidity of such an intellectualized model.

De Fraja's volume is a useful addition to the series of studies on Joachim of Fiore and his works produced by the Centro Internazionale di Studi Gioachimiti, not only for the content described above, but also for its supporting appendices of selected texts written by Joachim himself, two plates providing charts of relationships from Oxford, Corpus Christi College, MS 255, and what appears to be the inclusive collection of all thirty-five documents produced by and for Fiore during Joachim's lifetime (dating from 1191 to 1202), as well as nineteen more from June 1202 through October 1239. These documents include reconstructions of now-lost bequests to Joachim from Tancred, king of Sicily, in 1191 and from Empress Costanza of Sicily; the surviving charters of Emperor Henry VI, the empress, and

her son, Emperor Frederick II, here styled king of Sicily; and documents from Celestine III, Innocent III, and others. These texts could be readily used as examples in a medieval sources or source criticism course.

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NIRIT BEN-ARYEH DEBBY, *The Renaissance Pulpit: Art and Preaching in Tuscany, 1400–1550*. (Late Medieval and Early Modern Studies, 6.) Turnhout: Brepols, 2007. Pp. xvii, 294; 8 color plates and 88 black-and-white figures. €80.

Pulpits rank among the most conspicuous and costly of Italian late-medieval and Renaissance liturgical furnishings, and until now the scholarship on them has focused on Nicola and Giovanni Pisano's celebrated late-thirteenth- and early-fourteenth-century pulpits in Pisa, Siena, and Pistoia. This study moves beyond the Pisano pulpits to explore the history of pulpits—historiated and architectural, permanent and temporary—made in Florence and Prato in the fifteenth and sixteenth centuries. At the same time its author seeks to apply the theory, practice, and scholarship of preaching and sermons to Renaissance pulpits and their decorations in an attempt to understand better how they functioned and were perceived with regard to their iconography, church architecture, ritual performance, and audiences. The book comprises ten chapters, including an introduction and a conclusion, and a bibliography. (The latter is not comprehensive and therefore should have been designated “selected.”)

Although its subtitle suggests strict chronological boundaries, the study traces the history of pulpits from the Romanesque period through the end of the sixteenth century. It begins with a concise review of the history of Tuscan pulpits made before 1400, thus setting the stage for subsequent discussions of continuity and change in pulpit design, decoration, location, and function. Whereas the best-known late-medieval pulpits were usually the products of corporate commissions for cathedrals, in fifteenth-century Florence individual citizens began to commission them for mendicant and parish churches. In some cases private patrons arranged for their burial in close proximity to the pulpits they had erected, advertising their piety and generosity with their coats of arms. A case in point is the pulpit at the Franciscan church of Santa Croce that Benedetto da Maiano sculpted at the request of the wealthy merchant Pietro Mellini, whose inlaid-marble floor tomb echoes the polygonal profile of the pulpit's casket situated directly above it. That said, it should be clarified that pulpits did not serve as tombs, as the author repeatedly states in chapter 3, but rather some of them functioned as integral parts of funerary monuments in a manner similar to the Florentine sacristies and chapter houses that famously also served as burial chapels for the Guidalotti, Strozzi, Medici, and others. Indeed, it seems probable that the private patronage of pulpits in the fifteenth century was the natural outgrowth of the fact that prominent families previously had obtained patronage rights to other liturgically and ritually important areas in Florence's principal basilicas, convents, and monasteries.

Chapter 4, which explores the location and function of fifteenth-century pulpits, demonstrates that the architectural barriers, particularly rood screens, that defined sacred space in mendicant basilicas inevitably resulted in pulpits like the one at Santa Croce being situated in the parts of those churches reserved for the lay congregation. Contemporary images of preachers delivering sermons underscore the close relationship between pulpits and their lay audiences, an example being the book's cover image of *St. Antoninus Preaching*, a bronze relief from Giambologna's St. Antoninus Chapel at San Marco. Debby suggests that the pulpit from which St. Antoninus delivers his sermon may be the same one Savonarola used in the late quattrocento. It is more likely, however, that the image is derived from the wooden pulpit affixed to San Marco's right wall that Alessandro de' Medici, a